

Feminism and the Study of Masculinity: Unlikely Bedfellows?

Jennifer K. Bosson

I have considered myself a feminist for as long as I can remember. For much of my life, this meant thinking about how girls' and women's experiences are shaped by patriarchal systems and power structures. Currently, however, my most intellectually absorbing research interest is the study of beliefs about manhood and masculinity, or what my collaborator Joe Vandello and I call *precarious manhood* (Bosson & Vandello, 2011; Vandello & Bosson, 2013). The combination of my closely held feminist values and my scholarly interests in men's gendered experiences often gives rise to difficult and vexing questions about the fit between feminism and the study of masculinity. In this chapter, I will describe and attempt to unpack three challenging questions with which I grapple regularly. These questions pertain to the methods that I use ("Does research that compares men's and women's responses reinforce the gender binary?"), the focus of my research ("Does research on precarious manhood downplay women's difficulties?"), and the contributions of my work to feminist causes ("Can work on precarious manhood further the cause of feminism?"). I cannot promise to offer conclusive answers to these questions, nor am I confident that such answers even exist. Instead, my goal in this chapter is to think through some of the inherent complexities and confusions that researchers face when our work addresses sensitive questions of social and political importance.

J.K. Bosson (✉)

Department of Psychology, The University of South Florida, 4202 E. Fowler Ave.,
PCD 4118G, Tampa, FL 33604, USA

e-mail: jbosson@usf.edu

Precarious Manhood

Before proceeding to the three questions, I will provide a brief overview of my research on the male gender role. Working closely with Joe Vandello and our graduate students, I study common, socially shared beliefs about gender and how these beliefs shape women's and men's personal and interpersonal experiences. In particular, I am interested in the *structure* of gender roles, by which I mean the relative ease or difficulty with which womanhood and manhood status are earned, and the competitiveness and effort involved in maintaining each type of status. Cultures around the world tend to conceptualize manhood as an achieved social status (Gilmore, 1990), or one that must be earned through merit and that can be lost or taken away (e.g., Linton, 1936). In contrast, womanhood status is much more commonly construed as an ascribed status, or a biological given. In our work, Joe and I demonstrate that this tendency to view manhood as more precarious than womanhood is pervasive among US college students and adults, and shapes the ways they think and speak about gender, as well as the ways in which they interpret and understand gender-relevant social situations (Vandello, Bosson, Cohen, Burnaford, & Weaver, 2008; Weaver, Vandello, Bosson, & Burnaford, 2010). Further, we find that occupying a relatively precarious gender status has implications for men's functioning across a range of domains including the self-concept, depression and anxiety symptoms, mental health attitudes, psychophysiological stress responses, aggressive cognitions and behavior, risk-taking, workplace attitudes, and antigay reactions, to name a few (Bosson & Michniewicz, 2013; Bosson, Vandello, Burnaford, Weaver, & Wasti, 2009; Bosson, Weaver, Caswell, & Burnaford, 2012; Caswell, Bosson, Vandello, & Sellers, 2014; Michniewicz, Bosson, Lenes, & Chen, 2015; Michniewicz, Vandello, & Bosson, 2014; Vandello et al., 2008; Vandello, Hettinger, Bosson, & Siddiqi, 2013; Weaver, Vandello, & Bosson, 2012; for a review see Vandello & Bosson, 2013).

We are interested in the precarious structure of the male gender role because we believe that it can shed light on some of the big-picture questions about gender that interest us, not only personally as feminists, but intellectually as scholars and researchers. For instance, we believe that the precariousness of the male gender role contributes to men's interpersonal behavior including status-seeking efforts, rigid adherence to gender role norms, sexual prejudice, use of risky and sometimes violent behavior, and efforts to dominate and control women. Whether or not we are correct in all of these hypotheses remains to be seen, for our studies in precarious manhood are still young and there is much left to do. Nonetheless, we have already encountered some worthy challenges to both our assumptions and our approach (e.g., Addis & Schwab, 2013; Chrisler, 2013). In what follows, I describe several of these challenges and attempt to explain what I mean when I say that the precariousness of the male gender role can shed light on big-picture questions about gender that are central to feminist causes.

Does Research That Compares Men and Women Reinforce the Gender Binary?

Because my work often compares the experiences and reactions of men against those of women, it invites accusations of reinforcing the gender binary (Addis & Schwab, 2013). That is, by treating “male” and “female” as appropriate and meaningful categories of comparison, my work may be seen as implicitly assuming that nature offers us two genders, and that it is therefore biologically (or at least psychologically) defensible to treat these as non-overlapping classes of things. From feminist perspectives, this assumption is problematic for several reasons. First, it appears to reflect an essentialist understanding of gender that fails to acknowledge the ways in which gender is socially, historically, and culturally constructed and understood (Fine & Gordon, 1989; Riger, 1992). Second, it sustains dualistic interpretations of male and female as opposites, thereby exaggerating the differences and ignoring the similarities between them (Hare-Mustin & Maracek, 1988; Hyde, 2005; Unger, 1979). Third, it oversimplifies reality by imposing a two-category system on what is likely a complex continuum of five or more distinct biological sexes (Fausto-Sterling, 1993). Fourth, the assumption of two non-overlapping genders raises what Hawkesworth (1989) calls “functionalist” questions about the motives that drive this conceptualization. Such questions ask what men as a class stand to gain—psychologically, economically, and politically—from a system that posits male and female as two separate, essential categories, each characterized by different skills, abilities, tendencies, and so on. Thus, research that reinforces the gender binary is problematic not only because it essentializes, dualizes, ignores, exaggerates, and oversimplifies aspects of the natural world, but because it presumably does so in the service of benefiting the oppressor at the expense of the oppressed.

Before proceeding I should note, of course, that feminist critiques do not always take issue with methods that involve comparing men’s and women’s experiences.¹ Some earlier feminist critiques of the social sciences, and of psychology in particular, focused on the exclusion of women altogether from empirical research. As Crawford and Marecek (1989) note, psychology was “womanless” for many decades, as evidenced by the lack of attention to women’s experiences as topics of investigation, the lack of inclusion of women in the research process—both as researchers and research participants (Lykes & Stewart, 1986)—and the implicit assumption that men’s experiences could stand in for all “human” experiences (Grady, 1981; McHugh, Koeske, & Frieze, 1986). Given psychology’s history of “womanlessness,” it is perhaps unsurprising that some feminists have lauded the

¹ Indeed, it is false to imply that there is one, unified set of feminist critiques of empiricism and the scientific method (Riger, 1992). Harding (1986) identifies three primary themes among feminist critiques of science, but even this analysis inevitably glosses over some of the distinctions between different feminist perspectives.

inclusion of gender as a variable of interest in research designs (Lykes & Stewart, 1986; Walsh, 1987).

These different feminist perspectives on research methods that compare men and women show that feminist scholars struggle with questions of how to include gender in research designs, and how to interpret gender differences that emerge from such research. As noted above, my own research routinely utilizes the gender binary as a methodological and interpretive tool: From my treatment of men and women as separate groups of respondents, to the statistical comparisons I conduct and the language of “gender differences” that I use when summarizing my findings, my research operates from within the framework of the gender binary. Some might say, then, that my work reinforces the gender binary (although I will return to this issue later). If work that compares men and women reinforces the gender binary, and this runs counter to feminist goals of egalitarianism, how do I and other feminist researchers reconcile this fact with our feminist leanings?

One answer is that to dismantle the gender binary (if that is the goal), we must understand it, and my work seeks to do that. I highlight the gender binary in my work not because I take as a given that it is right and good to cleave the world into male and female, but because this cleaving reflects a common and pervasive conception of gender that bears profound consequences for people’s everyday lives. My work—and that of any number of gender researchers across various academic disciplines—indicates that most people around the world explicitly carve the world into male and female; self-identify as members of one of these two gender classes; apply stereotypes to each gender to delineate its unique traits, skills, abilities, and interests; engage in heterosexual mating practices that further emphasize the differences between the genders; hold specialized meanings for those who do not conform to gender roles; and so on (see Barry, Bacon, & Child, 1957; Bem, 1981; Eagly & Steffen, 1984; Lonner, 1980; Williams & Best, 1990). It is, of course, possible to identify exceptions to the gender binary, such as individuals who identify as intersexed or gender queer, and cultures that acknowledge a third gender category (e.g., the fa’afafine of Samoa; Poasa, 1992). Nonetheless, reliance on the gender binary is so prevalent that some theorists call gender dimorphism a cultural universal (Lonner, 1980; Williams & Best, 1990). In other words, the tendency to partition the world into “male” and “female” is part of a shared social reality that transcends time and culture. To understand this tendency, we must study it on its own terms and this, at times, means using the language of the gender binary.

As a vivid example of gender dimorphism, consider the writings of anthropologist Gilmore (1990), whose work serves as inspiration for Joe’s and my precarious manhood research. Gilmore reviewed definitions of manhood across a wide range of cultures that differ in region, climate and geography, language, social customs and values, economic systems, and religious beliefs. And yet each culture defines manhood as something that must be earned and proven. Boys in these cultures do not automatically become men when they reach a certain age or go through puberty in the same way that girls automatically become women. Instead, boys earn the title of “man” by performing ritualized acts that involve physical pain, extreme bravery,

risks, sexual conquests, and/or violence. As Gilmore notes, across cultures, manhood status is treated as if it is a thing distinct from anatomical maleness; it is an achieved status. In contrast, womanhood is more typically treated as a biological given; becoming a woman rarely requires that women pass difficult, public tests or prove themselves as possessing a particular sort of character. Certainly, women and men both seek the same social approval for upholding the standards and norms of their respective gender roles and both receive sanctions when they fall short of these standards. However, in many of cultures around the globe, manhood status itself is understood as a precarious, fleeting, and publicly enacted status, whereas womanhood status is understood as a relatively stable and secure given.

My work with Joe began as an attempt to determine whether these same beliefs about manhood and womanhood exist among North American college students, a population that is largely middle-class, Western, educated, and White.² After all, there are no formal, culturally sanctioned manhood rituals of which we are aware in the families and subcultures in which our college students were raised; none of our students had to sacrifice an ox, rustle cattle, or undergo a painful bloodletting ceremony to claim the title of “real man.” Would our students therefore reject the very notion that manhood must be earned whereas womanhood is a given? Would this belief seem anachronistic and foreign to them? Not only did we seek to uncover the extent to which our North American young adult participants shared the same understanding of manhood as the cultures reviewed by Gilmore (1990), we also wanted to establish the existence of such beliefs using the tools of social psychology. This means collecting data under controlled conditions; using validated measures that are presented in a uniform manner to all respondents; treating variables that are not focal to our interests as noise to be controlled; randomly assigning participants to condition; constraining people’s response options by deciding a priori what range of responses we would examine; and so on. Given all of these attempts to decontextualize the presentation of stimuli and cleanse the research process of slop and error, I was frankly pessimistic that we would find anything so interesting as the anthropological trends summarized by Gilmore. But find something we did. Whether we asked the question point blank or in subtle, indirect ways, we found a great deal of evidence that our US college student participants shared the same understanding of precarious manhood that Gilmore and others have identified around the world. And here I sit, 9 years and dozens of studies later, still finding strong evidence of this belief in my research.

Here is one of my favorite of our earlier findings. We presented 141 undergraduates (76 women, 65 men), aged 18–42, with two statements about the transition from childhood to adulthood and asked them to indicate, on 7-point scales (1 = *strongly disagree*; 7 = *strongly agree*), how much they agreed with each

² Actually, our university—from which many of our research samples are drawn—is fairly racially and ethnically diverse compared to many North American universities, with 51 % students identifying as White, 21 % as Latino/a, 11 % as Black, 8 % as Asian, and 9 % as Biracial or “other” (University of South Florida InfoCenter, 2015).

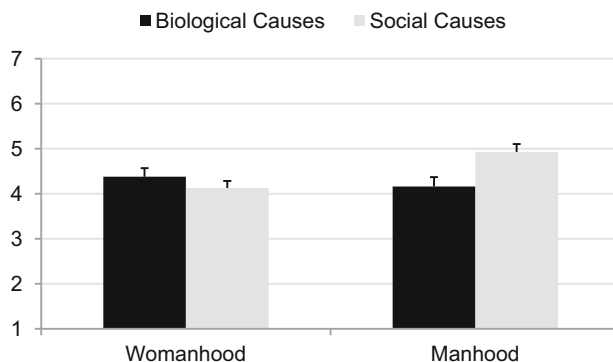


Fig. 6.1 Agreement with statements about the biological and social causes of the transition from girlhood/boyhood to womanhood/manhood. *Note:* Responses indicate strength of agreement on scales of 1–7. Means are controlled for age, race/ethnicity, and endorsement of traditional gender roles. Error bars are standard errors associated with each condition mean

statement (Vandello et al., 2008, Study 1b). In one condition, both statements referenced the transition from “boyhood to manhood,” and in the other condition, both statements referenced the transition from “girlhood to womanhood.” The statements read as follows: “The transition from boyhood [girlhood] to manhood [womanhood] occurs because of something physical or biological (e.g., hormonal changes)” and “The transition from boyhood [girlhood] to manhood [womanhood] occurs because of something social (e.g., passing certain social milestones).” When we analyzed responses to these items, we controlled statistically for participants’ age, their race/ethnicity, and their scores on a measure of endorsement of traditional gender roles (Larsen & Long’s [1988] Traditional-Egalitarian Sex Role Scale). This way, we could be sure that none of the observed variance in people’s responses to the two statements was explainable by their age, race/ethnicity, or general tendencies to hold traditional beliefs about gender roles.

Despite these controls, our results (shown in Fig. 6.1) offer clear evidence that people view manhood, relative to womanhood, as a status that requires more social achievements. Not only did participants agree more strongly that becoming a man as compared to becoming a woman requires social accomplishments, they also agreed more strongly with the statement that manhood requires social accomplishments than they did with the statement that manhood requires biological changes. When it came to explaining the transition to womanhood, participants agreed equally strongly with both statements about underlying causes. Thus, our participants agreed moderately that “becoming a woman” and “becoming a man” depends on hormonal and other physiological changes, and they also agreed moderately that “becoming a woman” depends on the passage of social milestones as well. But the single statement with which participants agreed the most strongly was that pertaining to the social accomplishments required for manhood status.

I appreciate this finding because of its simple elegance, its ability to tell a complex story about how we think about gender. I think that this simple difference

in how people conceptualize the status of “being a man” versus “being a woman” can potentially shed light on a wide array of gender-based phenomena, and from a feminist perspective, I find this inspiring. That members of so many cultures around the world share a common understanding of manhood as an achieved social status, as something that must be earned and proved and can easily be lost, suggests to me a powerful explanatory mechanism for unraveling a host of other seemingly unrelated gender disparities. For example, consider the fact that women and men tend to explain their own aggression differently. Whereas women generally view their own aggression in emotional terms, as a loss of control that erupts in an antisocial act, men tend to define their aggression in instrumental terms, as a means of controlling others (e.g., Campbell & Muncer, 1987). The precariousness of manhood, relative to womanhood, can potentially explain this gender difference: Men’s chronic concerns about losing their gender status compel them, at times, to “prove” their manhood with public, risky, active displays including acts of aggression. When this happens, men are inclined to view their aggression as instrumental rather than emotional because it serves the function of broadcasting manhood to others.

In this sense, the inspiration for my gender research resonates strongly with Gilmore’s (1990) assertion that “we must try to understand why culture uses or exaggerates biological potentials in specific ways” (p. 23). It is true that in doing my research I engage in some of the problematic practices that feminist criticisms attack. I often average the responses of men and women separately so that I can conduct between-gender comparisons, and I consider differences within each gender group as “noise” to be controlled rather than as useful information about people’s unique experiences. I also paint with a broad stroke when summarizing my findings, and I highlight the differences between men and women without also detailing their similarities. But I do this because of my hope that this particular difference in the lived experiences of men and women—the cross-cultural tendency to define manhood as an achieved status and womanhood as an ascribed status—can help us to understand why culture exaggerates gender-relevant biological potentials in specific ways.

But let me return now to the question of whether the gender binary is reinforced by methods that directly and intentionally compare men against women. Having explicated one possible solution to the problem—i.e., one must work within the binary to understand and change it—I want to back up and tackle the very question itself. This question creates a conundrum for empirical researchers because it is unanswerable with data. In my professional work, I am careful to distinguish data from intuition. I am drawn to psychology as a science because I am comfortable depending on data to answer my questions. Data allow me to express my “truth” just as paint gives expression to the artist and logic to the philosopher. To me, the question of whether comparing men and women has the effect of reinforcing (rather than merely reflecting) a widespread, pervasive system of understanding is not one that I can easily answer with the available data. It is a profound and important question, and I hope that both empiricists and critics of empiricism continue to engage with it. Questioning the assumptions we take as givens in science,

examining the ways in which language can reify shared understandings of reality, noting the biases of the scientists to whom we sometimes accord too much objectivity—these are all intellectually stimulating and necessary exercises. But to answer the question with any sense of definiteness is beyond my capacity. Simply put, I do not know if my methods reinforce the gender binary. And I must remain comfortable with this ambiguity if I am to continue in my research.

Does Research on Precarious Manhood Downplay Women's Difficulties?

Because my research highlights ways in which the male gender role creates difficulties and struggles for men, it may appear that it ignores the struggles of women. For example, in her critique of precarious manhood theory, Chrisler (2013) argues that we overstate the case for manhood being an achieved status and womanhood an ascribed status. Specifically, Chrisler notes that there are at least two domains in which social achievements are necessary for womanhood status: physical appearance and parenting. If such social achievements are indeed necessary for women to earn the status of “a real woman,” then it is possible that my research gives short shrift to women’s experiences by failing to acknowledge this.

It is certainly true that women are taught and expected to attend to our appearance, and that we learn to associate our beauty with our worth (Fredrickson & Roberts, 1997). It is also true that women are expected to want to become mothers, to forego other life paths in the pursuit of motherhood, and to demonstrate the traits and talents (e.g., nurturance, emotional intelligence) that will facilitate success in the mother role (Russo, 1976). Moreover, both of these sets of prescriptive norms can oppress women, limit our experiences, produce emotional and social difficulties, and so on. But in my research, I ask whether these prescriptions for womanhood are of the same qualitative nature as the many prescriptions for manhood, and my findings generally lead me to believe that they are not. This is not to imply that womanhood is easier to do than is manhood, or that the consequences of failing to “do gender” are worse for men than they are for women. What it means is that both the “doing of” gender and the consequences for failing are qualitatively different for women and men.

How is the “doing of” gender different for women and men? To address this question, I use the female prescription of “body work” that Chrisler (2013) identified as one of the ways by which women earn gender status. Body work refers to the effort that women are expected to exert toward beautifying our faces and bodies (Chapkis, 1986; Gimlin, 2007). Chrisler (2013) writes “[i]f womanliness is indeed essential and ascribed, it would not be necessary to exaggerate the womanly aspects of the body through diet, exercise, foundation garments, body sculpting, and cosmetic surgery” (p. 188). But I think that attending to one’s appearance is a fundamentally different sort of social achievement than the active and risky proofs

often required of men. Indeed, the distinction between achievements involving appearance and those involving action is relevant to a wide range of gender role norms and stereotypes. It reflects the subject-object distinction, which I view as a powerful metaphor for thinking about gender differences. Whereas subjects are sources of action, or things that *do*, objects are the focus of actions, or things that get *acted upon*. Objectification theory (Fredrickson & Roberts, 1997) and its theoretical and empirical extensions (e.g., Calogero, Tantleff-Dunn, & Thompson, 2011; Goldenberg & Roberts, 2004) do an excellent job of articulating the ways in which girls and women are routinely objectified. Girls and women are socialized within a cultural context that sexualizes and objectifies the female body, that reduces women's value to their physical appearance, and that treats women as if they are objects that exist for the pleasure of others. This objectification robs women of their perceived competence, agency, and mental fluency, rendering them fungible commodities that lack autonomy and personhood (Nussbaum, 1995). Thus, to the extent that true womanhood status requires achievements related to physical appearance—acts involving decorating, manipulating, and attending to the body—such achievements are ones that objectify, rather than subjectify, the self. As Gilmore (1990) notes, acts that establish womanhood are those that “enhance, rather than create” gender status (pp. 11–12).

In contrast, the types of social proofs required of men are those that demonstrate men's status as subjects. Such proofs involve doing, controlling, risking, acting upon, and so on. Just as women repeatedly learn, in countless subtle and not-so-subtle ways, that their gender role entails being done to/acted upon, men repeatedly learn that their gender role entails doing/action. Widespread, cross-cultural gender stereotypes attribute greater agency, power, and autonomy to men than to women (Eagly & Steffen, 1984; Fiske, Cuddy, Glick, & Xu, 2002; Williams & Best, 1990). Men are expected to demonstrate qualities that predict and convey social status—such as competition and assertiveness—whereas such qualities are less expected of women (Jackman, 1994; Rudman, Moss-Racusin, Phelan, & Nauts, 2012). Long-standing divisions of labor place men more frequently than women into social and occupational roles that involve risk, action, and physical strength (Eagly & Wood, 1999; Wood & Eagly, 2002). My own research offers several pieces of evidence that manhood status is associated more strongly than womanhood status with action and “doing.” For example, consider the data summarized in Fig. 6.1, which shows that people attribute “becoming a man” more to social than biological factors. In another study, we found that men use more active verbs when describing “a real man” than they do when describing “a real woman,” suggesting that the very ways in which men speak about manhood reflect an implicit understanding of the social proofs it requires (Weaver et al., 2010, Study 1). In another line of research, my collaborators and I find that the types of social situations that make people feel masculine are those that afford opportunities for action, leadership, and achievement, whereas the types of social situations that make people feel feminine are those that afford opportunities for beautification (Ryan, Bosson, Kuchynka, & Legate, 2015). All of these patterns suggest that, if men and women must both

“do” their gender, then the types of performances that are required are still quite different.

Similarly, I propose that the consequences of failing to “do gender” are qualitatively different for men and women. In our work on precarious manhood, Joe and I argue that men are far more likely to “lose” their gender status in other people’s eyes than women are. When men display femininity or fail to enact masculinity, they expect to be, and are, seen (at least temporarily) as “not a real man.” The same is less true for women (Vandello et al., 2008). That said, Chrisler’s (2013) point about the requirement of motherhood is well-taken. If any achievement can be considered a proof of womanhood comparable to the proofs required for manhood, I think “bearing and mothering children” is a good candidate. Cross-culturally, the role of progenitor is one of the primary ways in which men prove their manhood (Gilmore, 1990), and it is not clear why this should be any different for women. Bearing children is risky, active, effortful, and physically grueling; gestation and parenting utilize enormous physical resources and often require sacrifice, bravery, and protection. Across cultures, the motherhood mandate dictates that women of childbearing years should dedicate themselves full-time to the task of bearing and raising children and forego a career, independence, and other life goals incompatible with motherhood (Russo, 1976). Do women therefore lose their womanhood status if they do not bear children?

Curiously enough, we find no evidence that they do. In one study (Vandello et al., 2008, Study 3), we presented participants with a brief description of either a woman (Anne) or a man (John) who had tried for several years to have children, but eventually learned that she could not get pregnant (or he could not impregnate his wife). We then presented participants with a series of five pencil sketches and asked them to select the one image that best represented the target’s “psychological portrait,” which we defined as “a visual representation of a person’s character, *not* an actual likeness of the person.” In each condition, the set of images contained one of a child, one of an attractive adult, and one of an unattractive adult, all of whom were the same gender as Anne or John (the other pictures included a horse and an abstract image). We reasoned that, if a woman who cannot bear children loses her very status as a woman, then participants should choose the image of the pre-pubescent girl to represent Anne. Instead, only 16 % of participants chose the girl to represent an infertile woman; the largest proportion of participants (28 %) chose the unattractive woman to represent Anne. Just as tellingly, among participants who read about John, the largest proportion (40 %) selected the image of the pre-pubescent boy to represent a sterile man. Thus, we found that people take away the manhood status of a man who cannot impregnate a woman, attributing to him the psychological status of a child. However, people do not similarly take away the womanhood status of a woman who cannot bear children—instead, they take away her beauty.

Intellectually, then, I feel comfortable saying “No,” that research on precarious manhood does not downplay women’s struggles to attain or maintain gender status. It merely posits and shows that women’s struggles are qualitatively different from men’s, and that men, but not women, must contend with the chronic possibility of

losing their gender status in other people's eyes. But it occurs to me that in answering this question intellectually, I am perhaps taking the easy way out. For the question is both an intellectual and a political one, and I often find intellectual questions easier to answer than political ones. The political question here is perhaps one about the long-term benefits and costs of devoting oneself to the study of the male gender role. It asks: In a field that spent much of its history plagued by womanlessness (Crawford & Maracek, 1989), does work on the male gender role downplay women's gender-based difficulties simply by virtue of focusing on men instead of women? And, more broadly, in a world in which men routinely hold more power, control more resources, do more damage, and command more attention than women, do we really need research that highlights how hard it is to be a man? I have asked myself these very questions, and I have no quick answers at the ready.

In their critique of precarious manhood theory, Addis and Schwab (2013) write that our focus on men may lead to a "delegitimizing of women's struggles," and that our findings might be interpreted to suggest that men have it worse than women (p. 115). They further suggest that we, as psychologists whose findings can potentially shape socially shared understandings of gender, have a responsibility to think carefully about the ways in which our questions, methods, and findings reflect and perpetuate certain assumptions about gender that may run counter to the goals of gender equality. These political issues surrounding my research are complex, and I have mixed reactions to them.

On the one hand, I am not sure how much responsibility I bear for other people's interpretations of my findings, or for their use (or misuse) of my data to further their own social and political goals. On the other hand, I recognize that science itself is a political endeavor, and I agree that researchers ought to do what we can to shape the narrative by choosing our topics and words with care. But to condemn the study of the male gender role for being not about the female gender role seems, to me, an untenable position. Researchers are going to study the topics that we find interesting, the ones that compel us intellectually, whether or not these topics are politically popular or fashionable. And after we have done our work of describing our methods, findings, and interpretations as truthfully and accurately as possible, we must sit back and let our readers do their job of consuming and using the information we offer. This is the mutual arrangement we enter into, at least implicitly, when we publish our findings. Certainly not every reader will use my findings in a manner that pleases me; some may even use them to make arguments or build social or political platforms that I find objectionable. But if I am going to publish my research, I have to offer readers the benefit of the doubt by assuming that most will take my research on its merits, engage with it critically, and use it wisely. Indeed, one of the fundamental premises of democracy, and a driving force behind free speech and anti-censorship efforts, is the assumption "that the ordinary individual, by exercising critical judgment, will select the good and reject the bad" (American Library Association, 1953). Science may be imperfect, but there is a process to it, and the process is based on sound, logical principles that hold value for me. Sometimes, when faced with intractable questions about the merits of my research, I take solace in trusting the process.

Can Work on Precarious Manhood Further the Cause of Feminism?

I have argued throughout this chapter that research on masculinity and the male gender role can help shed light on important gender-relevant phenomena. In this section, I draw connections between men's gender role anxiety and larger issues of gender equality. Specifically, I offer the hypothesis that men's striving to prove and maintain manhood status can help to explain what some theorists call the *stalled gender revolution* (Hochschild, 1989). Admittedly, this section is largely speculative. My goal here is not to build an empirical case, but rather to situate work on precarious manhood within other perspectives that attempt to explain how and why men chronically and systematically occupy positions of greater status and power than women.³

The second-wave feminist movement, which began in the early 1960s in the United States, inspired almost three decades of unprecedented progress for women's rights and equality. Women increasingly earned college degrees and doctorates and entered the workforce, including traditionally male-dominated careers and occupations (Cotter, Hermsen, & Vanneman, 2004, 2009). But at some point during the 1990s, the upward trend in women's gains plateaued, resulting in the stalled gender revolution (Hochschild, 1989). Scholars who study this phenomenon note an interesting asymmetry in the types of social changes that characterized the decades of the 1960s through the 2000s: Whereas women moved into positions and roles traditionally occupied by men, men did not move into positions and roles traditionally occupied by women with comparable fervor. As England (2010) explains, this asymmetry reflects a fundamental and stable discrepancy in how we value traditionally male versus female activities and roles. For example, the cultural devaluing of childrearing ensures that men are unmotivated to leave paid work to enter the unpaid domestic sphere, and the low status and low pay associated with many female-dominated jobs and occupations means that men have few incentives to seek such positions. Thus, the gender revolution occurred because women increasingly sought positions of greater economic and social status, not because of large-scale cultural reassessments of the value or meaning of "women's" and "men's" work.

Given a steady increase of women into the workforce, unaccompanied by a comparable transition among men into the private sphere, the number of dual-earner couples increased dramatically over the past several decades, from 41 % in 1970 to 70 % in 2001 (Raley, Mattingly, & Bianchi, 2006). One result of this trend, and especially among dual-earner couples with children, is that it creates a situation in which two adults must perform three time-consuming jobs—two paid and one

³ Many of the ideas presented here were inspired by and/or refined through discussions held at the "Work as a Masculinity Contest" work group hosted by Dr. Joan Williams and Dr. Jennifer Berdahl in December of 2015 at the Sauder School of Business at the University of British Columbia.

unpaid (i.e., childcare and housework; Christensen & Schneider, 2011). Employed men, however, have been slow to share equally in that third, unpaid job, performing about half as much housework (Lennon & Rosenfield, 1994), and logging significantly fewer hours on childcare (Yavorsky, Dush, & Schoppe-Sullivan, 2015), compared to their employed wives. And even more troublingly, a close inspection of gender divisions in domestic chores reveals a curious trend: Husbands in dual-earner couples who earn more than their wives tend to do more housework as the disparity between their incomes decreases (Coltrane, 2000), but only up to the point where their wives earn as much as they do (Bittman, England, Folbre, Sayer, & Matheson, 2003; Tichenor, 2005). After that point, men do *less* housework as their wives out-earn them by an increasing margin. Finally, “overwork”—defined as logging 50 hours or more per week on paid labor—is becoming increasingly prevalent in professional and managerial occupations, and men are more likely than women to engage in overwork (Cha & Weeden, 2014). That is, men are doing less work in the home and increasingly more work outside of it.

As Williams (2010) notes, work–family conflict is often treated in the media and in American politics as a women’s issue, one in which the responsibilities of home life preclude women from pursuing the sorts of career advancements that allow men to ascend the status ladder at work. But an examination of gender divisions in domestic and childcare responsibilities, and in the increasingly competitive dynamics of the workplace, suggests that it is perhaps men’s work–family balance, and not women’s, that requires more of our scholarly attention. Perhaps the gender revolution stalled, in part, because of male gender role norms that compel men to spend more time at work and less time on domestic duties.

I think this is where precarious manhood theory has some insights to offer. Because manhood is a tenuous and uncertain status, men are generally highly attuned to the standards of action and performance that accompany their gender role, as well as the consequences of failing to uphold these standards. One domain of performance that is historically and cross-culturally more central to the male than the female gender role is that of provision for family; thus, earning potential and employment status are core requirements of the male gender role (Eagly & Wood, 1999; Gilmore, 1990; Levant & Kopecky, 1995). Add to this the fact that a primary tenet of the male gender role is *antifemininity*—the rule stating that boys and men must avoid femininity in their behavior, personality, appearance, and interests (Bosson & Michniewicz, 2013; Thompson, Grisanti, & Pleck, 1985)—and you have the ingredients for a stalled revolution. The gradual entrance of women into the workforce challenges manhood status in at least three ways: (1) It erodes men’s position as primary breadwinners in the home, (2) it “feminizes” jobs and occupations that were previously dominated by men, and (3) it pressures men to take on more of the “women’s” work at home, as they accommodate the busy schedules of their working wives. In the parlance of precarious manhood theory, each of these ingredients may be considered a “gender threat,” in that each one poses a challenge to men’s already precarious gender status (Vandello et al., 2008). Given this complex cocktail of gender threats, perhaps it is unsurprising that so many men act out their resistance on the home front by refusing to take on more childcare and

housework (Brines, 1994; Greenstein, 2000; Hochschild, 1989), and in the workplace by working longer and longer hours in a competitive race for job status (Cha, 2010, 2013).

My point here is that to understand men's role in stalling women's progress, it may be important to understand the unique gender role stresses that men face. It may be important to understand what sharing responsibility for both the paid and unpaid contributions to family life *means* to men, on an individual and interpersonal level. Men's chronic felt pressure to "be a man" may fuel their resistance to housework and childcare; it may motivate them to behave more competitively in the workplace; and it may compel them to work longer hours and seek more career advances. My colleagues' and my work shows that men react to even minor gender threats—such as (false) negative feedback on a test of gender identity, or performance of a brief, stereotypically feminine task—with heightened anxiety and stress (Caswell et al., 2014; Vandello et al., 2008). If brief, experimentally induced gender threats have these consequences for men in our laboratory, it is certainly plausible that the gender threats men encounter outside the lab—as they are asked to share the workplace with women and do more domestic duties at home—have similarly negative consequences for men's daily functioning. Furthermore, we find evidence of negative, stressful reactions to gender threats even among men who describe themselves as gender egalitarian and who reject male gender role norms of toughness and dominance over women. This suggests that occupying a precarious gender status may create resistance to feminist change even among men who explicitly embrace feminist principles and values. The tendency to react with anxiety and stress to gender threats may be so ingrained in some men that their intellectually progressive beliefs and values cannot override it.

Of course, the stalled gender revolution is undoubtedly a multiply determined phenomenon whose full understanding will require analysis on several levels. System justification theory (Jost & Banaji, 1994; Jost, Banaji, & Nosek, 2004), for example, posits that people's resistance to social and political change reflects motives that operate on the individual level, the group level, and/or the *system level*, the latter of which refers to the larger social system in which all individuals and groups are embedded. This theory assumes that people are generally motivated to view as just and legitimate the larger social system that governs them, part of which is the gender status hierarchy that affords men greater power and independence than women. System justification theory has been used profitably to illuminate both men's and women's system-level resistance to women's social and economic gains (Brown & Diekmann, 2013; O'Brien, Major, & Gilbert, 2012), offering evidence of a pervasive psychological need to maintain the status quo. Certainly, this need may help to explain the stalled gender revolution. But I propose that precarious manhood theory can help to explain some of the individual- and group-level factors that fuel men's resistance to women's progress. Such factors include men's anxiety about their tenuous gender status (Vandello et al., 2008), their motivation to prove their manhood through status-seeking in the workplace, and their chronic need to eschew that which is feminine (Bosson & Michniewicz, 2013). Thus, research on precarious manhood, in combination with analyses of other psychological, social,

political, and economic factors, may contribute to a fuller understanding of why women's earlier, steady gains in power ultimately plateaued. As Williams (2010, p. 2) writes, "Because masculine norms are a prime mover of the social dynamics within which both men and women negotiate their daily lives, feminists need to attend to masculinity." I tend to agree.

Conclusion

Are feminism and the study of masculinity unlikely bedfellows? Perhaps so, in some ways. But if their union seems a bit awkward at times, I view it as inevitable. The goal of understanding gender—of understanding why cultures exaggerate the biological potential of sex in specific ways—is fully compatible with feminist goals of gender equality. And understanding gender means understanding both the female and male gender roles, as well as the unique dilemmas that they create for women and men. In this chapter, I have tried to articulate some of the challenges that I face as a feminist doing work on masculinity, and it has been an exercise both gratifying and frustrating. It is gratifying because the practice of confronting complexity, of working through the intellectual and philosophical tangles underneath the surface of one's work, is always educational. But it is frustrating because, when all is said and done, there are still no hard and fast answers to my questions, and I am someone who finds comfort in concrete answers. Ultimately, however, I think it is okay to have questions without easy answers. In fact, some suggest that posing difficult questions about science and society lies at the very core of feminism (Reinharz, 1992; Riger, 1992). I hope that feminists continue to make inroads into the study of the male gender role, despite the occasional frustrations of this endeavor. I believe that the study of manhood holds some of the answers we seek.

Acknowledgment I thank Heather Sellers and Jamie Goldenberg for their helpful feedback on an earlier draft of this chapter, and David Davisson for his invaluable assistance with research.

References

- Addis, M. E., & Schwab, J. R. (2013). Theory and research on gender are always precarious. *Psychology of Men & Masculinity*, 14, 114–116. doi:<http://dx.doi.org/10.1037/a0030960>.
- American Library Association. (1953). *The freedom to read statement*. Chicago, IL: Author. Retrieved from <http://www.ala.org/advocacy/intfreedom/statementspols/freedomreadstatement>.
- Barry, H., Bacon, M. K., & Child, I. L. (1957). A cross-cultural survey of some sex differences in socialization. *Journal of Abnormal and Social Psychology*, 55, 327–332. doi:<http://dx.doi.org/10.1037/h0041178>.
- Bem, S. L. (1981). Gender schema theory: A cognitive account of sex typing. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 88, 354–364. doi:<http://dx.doi.org/10.1037/0033-295X.88.4.354>

- Bittman, M., England, P., Folbre, N., Sayer, L., & Matheson, G. (2003). When does gender trump money? Bargaining and time in household work. *The American Journal of Sociology*, 109, 186–214.
- Bosson, J. K., & Michniewicz, K. S. (2013). Gender dichotomization at the level of ingroup identity: What it is, and why men use it more than women. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 105, 425–442. doi: <http://dx.doi.org/10.1037/a0033126>.
- Bosson, J. K., & Vandello, J. A. (2011). Precarious manhood and its links to action and aggression. *Current Directions in Psychological Science*, 20, 82–86. doi: [10.1177/0963721411402669](https://doi.org/10.1177/0963721411402669).
- Bosson, J. K., Vandello, J. A., Burnaford, R. M., Weaver, J. R., & Wasti, S. A. (2009). Precarious manhood and displays of physical aggression. *Personality and Social Psychology Bulletin*, 35, 623–634. doi: [10.1177/0146167208331161](https://doi.org/10.1177/0146167208331161).
- Bosson, J. K., Weaver, J. R., Caswell, T. A., & Burnaford, R. M. (2012). Gender threats and men's antigay behaviors: The harmful effects of asserting heterosexuality. *Group Processes & Intergroup Relations*, 15, 471–486. doi: [10.1177/1368430211432893](https://doi.org/10.1177/1368430211432893).
- Brown, E. R., & Diekmann, A. B. (2013). Differential effects of female and male candidates on system justification: Can cracks in the glass ceiling foster complacency? *European Journal of Social Psychology*, 43, 299–306. doi: [10.1002/ejsp.1951](https://doi.org/10.1002/ejsp.1951).
- Brines, J. (1994). Economic dependency, gender, and the division of labor at home. *American Journal of Sociology*, 100, 652–688.
- Calogero, R. M., Tantleff-Dunn, S., & Thompson, J. K. (Eds.). (2011). *Self-objectification in women: Causes, consequences, and counteractions*. Washington, DC: American Psychological Association. doi: <http://dx.doi.org/10.1037/12304-000>.
- Campbell, A., & Muncer, S. (1987). Models of anger and aggression in the social talk of women and men. *Journal for the Theory of Social Behaviour*, 17, 489–511. doi: [10.1111/j.1468-5914.1987.tb00110.x](https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1468-5914.1987.tb00110.x).
- Caswell, T. A., Bosson, J. K., Vandello, J. A., & Sellers, J. G. (2014). Testosterone and men's stress responses to gender threats. *Psychology of Men & Masculinity*, 15, 4–11. doi: [http://dx.doi.org/10.1037/a0031394](https://doi.org/10.1037/a0031394).
- Cha, Y. (2010). Reinforcing separate spheres: The effect of spousal overwork on men's and women's employment in dual-earner households. *American Sociological Review*, 75, 303–329. doi: [10.1177/0003122410365307](https://doi.org/10.1177/0003122410365307).
- Cha, Y. (2013). Overwork and the persistence of gender segregation in occupations. *Gender & Society*, 27, 158–184. doi: [10.1177/0891243212470510](https://doi.org/10.1177/0891243212470510).
- Cha, Y., & Weeden, K. A. (2014). Overwork and the slow convergence in the gender gap in wages. *American Sociological Review*. Advance online publication. doi: [10.1177/0003122414528936](https://doi.org/10.1177/0003122414528936).
- Chapkis, W. (1986). *Beauty secrets: Women and the politics of appearance*. Boston, MA: South End Press.
- Chrisler, J. C. (2013). Womanhood is not as easy as it seems: Femininity requires both achievement and restraint. *Psychology of Men & Masculinity*, 14, 117–120. doi: [10.1037/a0031005](https://doi.org/10.1037/a0031005).
- Christensen, K., & Schneider, B. (2011). Making a case for workplace flexibility. *The ANNALS of the American Academy of Political and Social Science Series*, 638, 6–2. doi: [10.1177/0002716211417245](https://doi.org/10.1177/0002716211417245).
- Coltrane, S. (2000). Research on household labor: Modeling and measuring the social embeddedness of routine family work. *Journal of Marriage and Family*, 62, 1208–1233. doi: [10.1111/j.1741-3737.2000.01208.x](https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1741-3737.2000.01208.x).
- Cotter, D. A., Hermesen, J. M., & Vanneman, R. (2004). *Gender inequality at work*. New York, NY: Russell Sage.
- Cotter, D. A., Hermesen, J. M., & Vanneman, R. (2009). *End of the gender revolution website*. Retrieved from <http://www.bsos.umd.edu/socy/vanneman/endofgr/default.html>.
- Crawford, M., & Marecek, J. (1989). Psychology reconstructs the female, 1968–1988. *Psychology of Women Quarterly*, 13, 147–165. doi: [10.1111/j.1471-6402.1989.tb00993.x](https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1471-6402.1989.tb00993.x).

- Eagly, A. H., & Steffen, V. J. (1984). Gender stereotypes stem from the distribution of women and men into social roles. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 46, 735–754. doi:[10.1037/0022-3514.46.4.735](https://doi.org/10.1037/0022-3514.46.4.735).
- Eagly, A. H., & Wood, W. (1999). The origins of sex differences in human behavior: Evolved dispositions versus social roles. *American Psychologist*, 54, 408–423. doi:[10.1037/0003-066X.54.6.408](https://doi.org/10.1037/0003-066X.54.6.408).
- England, P. (2010). The gender revolution: Uneven and stalled. *Gender & Society*, 24, 149–166. doi:[10.1177/0891243210361475](https://doi.org/10.1177/0891243210361475).
- Fausto-Sterling, A. (1993). The five sexes: Why male and female are not enough. *The Sciences*, (March/April), 20–25. doi: [10.1002/j.2326-1951.1993.tb03081.x](https://doi.org/10.1002/j.2326-1951.1993.tb03081.x).
- Fine, M., & Gordon, S. M. (1989). Feminist transformations of / despite psychology. In M. Crawford & M. Gentry (Eds.), *Gender and thought: Psychological perspectives* (pp. 146–174). New York, NY: Springer. doi:[10.1007/978-1-4612-3588-0_8](https://doi.org/10.1007/978-1-4612-3588-0_8).
- Fiske, S. T., Cuddy, A. J., Glick, P., & Xu, J. (2002). A model of (often mixed) stereotype content: Competence and warmth respectively follow from perceived status and competition. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 82, 878–902. doi:<http://dx.doi.org/10.1037/0022-3514.82.6.878>.
- Fredrickson, B. L., & Roberts, T. (1997). Objectification theory: Toward understanding women's lived experiences and mental health risks. *Psychology of Women Quarterly*, 21, 173–206. doi:[10.1111/j.1471-6402.1997.tb00108.x](https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1471-6402.1997.tb00108.x).
- Gilmore, D. D. (1990). *Manhood in the making*. New Haven: Yale University Press.
- Gimlin, D. L. (2007). What is “Body Work”? A review of the literature. *Sociology Compass*, 1, 353–370. doi:[10.1111/j.1751-9020.2007.00015.x](https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1751-9020.2007.00015.x).
- Goldenberg, J. L., & Roberts, T.-A. (2004). The beast within the beauty: An existential perspective on the objectification and condemnation of women. In J. Greenberg, S. L. Koole, & T. A. Pyszczynski (Eds.), *Handbook of experimental existential psychology*. New York, NY: Guilford Press.
- Grady, K. E. (1981). Sex bias in research design. *Psychology of Women Quarterly*, 5, 628–636. doi:[10.1111/j.1471-6402.1981.tb00601.x](https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1471-6402.1981.tb00601.x).
- Greenstein, T. N. (2000). Economic dependence, gender and the division of labor in the home: A replication and extension. *Journal of Marriage & the Family*, 62(2), 322–335. doi:[10.1111/j.1741-3737.2000.00322.x](https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1741-3737.2000.00322.x).
- Harding, S. (1986). *The science question in feminism*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press.
- Hare-Mustin, R. T., & Maracek, J. (1988). The meaning of difference: Gender theory, postmodernism, and psychology. *American Psychologist*, 43, 355–464. doi:<http://dx.doi.org/10.1037/0003-066X.43.6.455>.
- Hawkesworth, M. E. (1989). Knowers, knowing, known: Feminist theory and claims of truth. *Signs*, 14, 533–557.
- Hochschild, A. (1989). *The second shift*. New York, NY: Viking.
- Hyde, J. S. (2005). The gender similarities hypothesis. *American Psychologist*, 60, 581–592. doi:[10.1037/0003-066X.60.6.581](https://doi.org/10.1037/0003-066X.60.6.581).
- Jackman, M. R. (1994). *The velvet glove: Paternalism and conflict in gender, class, and race relations*. Berkeley, CA: University of California Press.
- Jost, J. T., & Banaji, M. R. (1994). The role of stereotyping in system justification and the production of false consciousness. *British Journal of Social Psychology*, 33, 1–27.
- Jost, J. T., Banaji, M. R., & Nosek, B. A. (2004). A decade of system justification theory: Accumulated evidence of conscious and unconscious bolstering of the status quo. *Political Psychology*, 25, 881–919.
- Larsen, K. S., & Long, E. (1988). Attitudes toward sex roles: Traditional or egalitarian? *Sex Roles*, 19, 1–12. doi:[10.1007/BF00292459](https://doi.org/10.1007/BF00292459).
- Lennon, M. C., & Rosenfield, S. (1994). Relative fairness and the division of housework. *American Journal of Sociology*, 10, 506–531.

- Levant, R. F., & Kopecky, G. (1995). *Masculinity reconstructed: Changing the rules of manhood at work, in relationships and in family life*. New York, NY: Dutton.
- Linton, R. (1936). *The study of man: An introduction*. New York, NY: Appleton-Crofts.
- Lonner, W. J. (1980). The search for psychological universals. In H. C. Triandis & W. W. Lambert (Eds.), *Handbook of cross-cultural psychology* (Vol. 1, pp. 143–204). Boston, MA: Allyn & Bacon.
- Lykes, M. B., & Stewart, A. S. (1986). Evaluating the feminist challenge to research in personality and social psychology 1963–1983. *Psychology of Women Quarterly*, 10, 393–412. doi:[10.1111/j.1471-6402.1986.tb00764.x](https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1471-6402.1986.tb00764.x).
- McHugh, M. C., Koeske, R. D., & Frieze, I. H. (1986). Issues to consider in conducting nonsexist psychological research: A guide for researchers. *American Psychologist*, 41, 879–890. doi:[10.1037/0003-066X.41.8.879](https://doi.org/10.1037/0003-066X.41.8.879).
- Michniewicz, K. S., Bosson, J. K., Lenes, J. G., & Chen, J. (2015). Gender-atypical mental illness as male gender threat. *American Journal of Men's Health*. doi:[10.1177/1557988314567224](https://doi.org/10.1177/1557988314567224).
- Michniewicz, K. S., Vandello, J. A., & Bosson, J. K. (2014). Men's (mis)perceptions of the gender threatening consequences of unemployment. *Sex Roles*, 70, 88–97. doi:[10.1007/s11199-013-0339-3](https://doi.org/10.1007/s11199-013-0339-3).
- Nussbaum, M. (1995). Objectification. *Philosophy and Public Affairs*, 24, 249–291. doi:[10.1111/j.1088-4963.1995.tb00032.x](https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1088-4963.1995.tb00032.x).
- O'Brien, L. T., Major, B. N., & Gilbert, P. N. (2012). Gender differences in entitlement: The roles of system justifying beliefs. *Basic and Applied Social Psychology*, 34, 136–145. doi:[10.1080/01973533.2012.655630](https://doi.org/10.1080/01973533.2012.655630).
- Poasa, K. (1992). The Samoan fa'afafine: One case study and a discussion of transsexualism. *Journal of Psychology and Human Sexuality*, 5, 39–51. doi:[10.1300/J056v05n03_04](https://doi.org/10.1300/J056v05n03_04).
- Raley, S. B., Mattingly, M. J., & Bianchi, S. M. (2006). How dual are dual-income couples? Documenting change from 1970–2001. *Journal of Marriage and Family*, 68, 11–28. doi:[10.1111/j.1741-3737.2006.00230.x](https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1741-3737.2006.00230.x).
- Reinharz, S. (1992). *Feminist methods in social research*. New York, NY: Oxford University Press.
- Riger, S. (1992). Epistemological debates, feminist voices: Science, social values, and the story of women. *American Psychologist*, 47, 730–740. doi: <http://dx.doi.org/10.1037/0003-066X.47.6.730>
- Rudman, L. A., Moss-Racusin, C. A., Phelan, J. E., & Nauts, S. (2012). Status incongruity and backlash effects: Defending the gender hierarchy motivates prejudice against female leaders. *Journal of Experimental Social Psychology*, 48, 165–179. doi:[10.1016/j.jesp.2011.10.008](https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jesp.2011.10.008).
- Russo, N. F. (1976). The motherhood mandate. *Journal of Social Issues*, 32, 143–153. doi:[10.1111/j.1540-4560.1976.tb02603.x](https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1540-4560.1976.tb02603.x).
- Ryan, W. S., Bosson, J. K., Kuchynka, S. L., & Legate, N. (2015). [Gendered social situations]. Unpublished raw data
- Thompson, E. H., Grisanti, C., & Pleck, J. H. (1985). Attitudes toward the male role and their correlates. *Sex Roles*, 13, 413–427. doi:[10.1007/BF00287952](https://doi.org/10.1007/BF00287952).
- Tichenor, V. (2005). Maintaining men's dominance: Negotiating identity and power when she earns more. *Sex Roles*, 53, 191–205. doi:[10.1007/s11199-005-5678-2](https://doi.org/10.1007/s11199-005-5678-2).
- Unger, R. K. (1979). Toward a redefinition of sex and gender. *American Psychologist*, 34, 1085–1094. doi:<http://dx.doi.org/10.1037/0003-066X.34.11.1085>.
- University of South Florida InfoCenter. (2015). *Student headcount by funding campus*. Retrieved from http://usfweb3.usf.edu/infocenter/?report_category=ADM.
- Vandello, J. A., & Bosson, J. K. (2013). Hard won and easily lost: A review and synthesis of research on precarious manhood. *Psychology of Men & Masculinity*, 14, 101–113. doi:<http://dx.doi.org/10.1037/a0029826>.
- Vandello, J. A., Bosson, J. K., Cohen, D., Burnaford, R. M., & Weaver, J. R. (2008). Precarious manhood. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 95, 1325–1339. doi:[10.1037/a0012453](https://doi.org/10.1037/a0012453).

- Vandello, J. A., Hettinger, V. E., Bosson, J. K., & Siddiqi, J. (2013). When equal isn't really equal: The masculine dilemma of seeking work flexibility. *Journal of Social Issues*, 69, 303–321. doi:[10.1111/josi.12016](https://doi.org/10.1111/josi.12016).
- Walsh, M. R. (Ed.). (1987). *The psychology of women: Ongoing debates*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- Weaver, J. R., Vandello, J. A., & Bosson, J. K. (2012). Intrepid, imprudent, or impetuous?: The effects of gender threats on men's financial decisions. *Psychology of Men & Masculinity*. doi:[10.1037/a0027087](https://doi.org/10.1037/a0027087).
- Weaver, J. R., Vandello, J. A., Bosson, J. K., & Burnaford, R. M. (2010). The proof is in the punch: Gender differences in perceptions of action and aggression as components of manhood. *Sex Roles*, 62, 241–251. doi:[10.1007/s11199-009-9713-6](https://doi.org/10.1007/s11199-009-9713-6).
- Williams, J. C. (2010). *Reshaping the work-family debate: Why men and class matter*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- Williams, J. E., & Best, D. L. (1990). *Sex and psyche: Gender and self viewed cross-culturally*. Thousand Oaks, CA: Sage.
- Wood, W., & Eagly, A. H. (2002). A cross-cultural analysis of the behavior of women and men: Implications for the origin of sex differences. *Psychological Bulletin*, 128, 699–727. doi:[10.1037/0033-2909.128.5.699](https://doi.org/10.1037/0033-2909.128.5.699).
- Yavorsky, J. E., Dush, C. K., & Schoppe-Sullivan, S. J. (2015). The production of inequality: The gender division of labor across the transition to parenthood. *Journal of Marriage and Family*, 77, 662–679. doi:[10.1111/jomf.12189](https://doi.org/10.1111/jomf.12189).